

Explaining Civil-Military Relations Reform

This study began with the notion that reform of the military was not possible without reform of the civil-military relationship itself. But to know what is required, a more complete depiction of the CMR was needed, one that examined a full range of issues pertaining to soldiers, politicians, and civilians and the relations between them. Admittedly this was no easy task, since the CMR is, to put it mildly, an unwieldy object of inquiry. The challenge was to on the one hand render as comprehensive an assessment of the CMR as possible and to on the other hand devise some means of simplifying the undertaking by way of teasing apart key elements of the CMR.

The chosen method was to embed civil-military developments within separate, thematic discussions centered on six critical dimensions (Chapters 3–8) that helped define the contours of the CMR. Each dimension constituted a window, if you will, onto the larger CMR system. Three examples make the point. Chapter 3 threw light on the political power aspects of the CMR. It revealed just what was at stake for civilians in reducing military autonomy and decision-making latitude and how well they fared in doing so. The institutional analysis presented in Chapter 5 focused attention on the more formal relations between government officials and soldiers. Its purpose was to demonstrate why organizational strength and design matter to structuring power relationships and, in particular, directing the flow of influence in ways that promote the democratic government's own agenda. Chapter 7 on convergence opened up a much needed view of the military-societal side of the triangle. It assessed to what extent societal attitudes toward the military have changed, and in directions that

comport with consolidating democracies, and whether military practices have tended to emulate societal trends.

The CMR is not only complex, it is also dynamic; it changes over time. Relations certainly evolved, but did they progress? Did they move in a direction consonant with a maturing democracy that would enable the military's transformation into a loyal servant of the democratic state and society? And if so, how would we know it? With the aid of evaluative criteria and benchmarks for success, we were able to assess the gains made for each dimension for each of the four countries. Dimensional relations improved incrementally, markedly, or not at all. The common metric made comparisons of progress between the countries possible.

Recall that each of the six dimensions (power, law, institutions, knowledge, convergence, and effectiveness) was subdivided into components, 25 in all (see Table 1.1). Progress for each component was measured with the aid of evaluative criteria scaled in an ordinal fashion (ranging from none to substantial, with assigned numbers 0–3) and displayed in figures at the end of Chapters 3–8. This chapter's Figure 9.1 and Table 9.1 have now aggregated and averaged all those components into final dimensional scores for each country. In Table 9.1, numbers shown in each row and column illuminate levels of achievement for every dimension and country examined. Reading down the columns gives us an assessment of dimensional advances across countries; reading across the rows gives us a sense of advances within countries.

In addition, each chapter had converted CMR gains into three phases of development. Table 9.2 displays summary data, revealing how many dimensional components fall into a state of transition or a consolidating mode or are fully consolidated. For example, a glance across the row labeled "averages" reveals that 35.7 percent of the dimensional components for all four countries had achieved a fully consolidated state, 42.8 percent were still consolidating, and 21.5 were laboring in a transitional phase.

The summary data allow us to turn to potential explanations for the patterns observed – both continuities and differences between country progress scores. In light of the multi-faceted nature of CMR, there can be no one explanation that adequately encompasses the entire complex of relations. The added benefit of teasing out the various dimensions (and their components) that comprise the CMR is that they facilitate a more finely grained, disaggregated set of explanations. Causal agents can be identified that register greater impacts on some dimensions than others, and those will be discussed below.

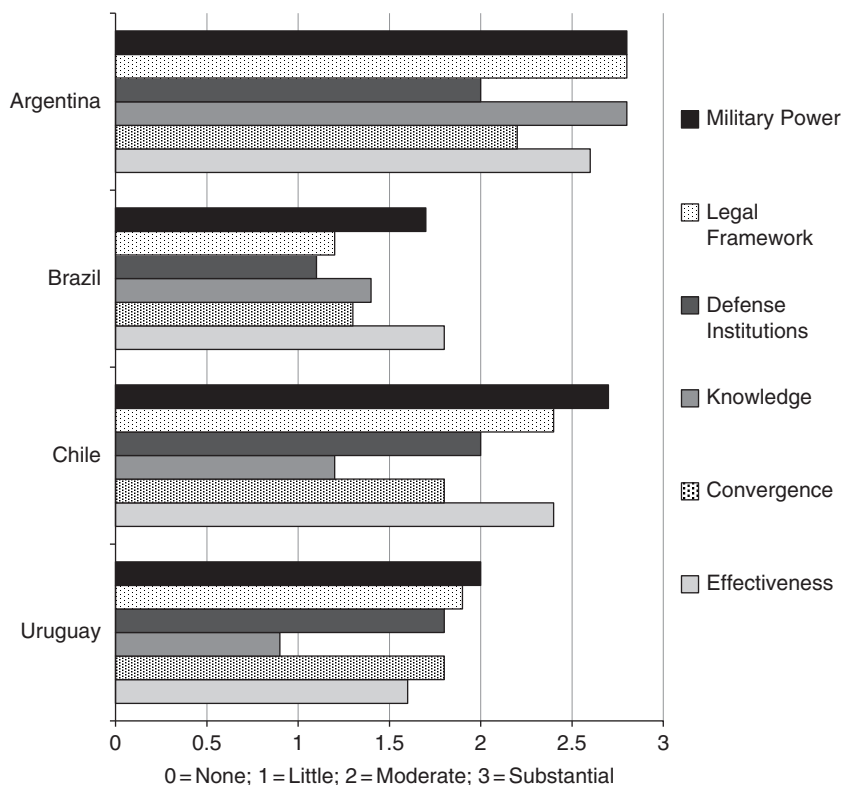


FIGURE 9.1 Progress Made for All Countries and Dimensions

Source: Authors.

The average level of progress achieved for all the dimensions and countries is 1.9 (Table 9.1), which means slightly less than moderate gains. None of the dimensions reaches a state of substantial development, nor does any country as a whole. From a different angle of vision, as shown in Table 9.2, 64 percent of the components for all the dimensions are in either a transition or consolidating phase. Only 36 percent have fully consolidated, though the bulk of that is captured by Argentina. These data are intriguing when considering that all four of these countries are rated as strong democracies by Freedom House, with Chile and Uruguay in particular among the highest-rated democracies in the world.¹ They have maintained this status for decades now. If civil-military relations

¹ All are rated as free political systems. See <https://freedomhouse.org/report/freedom-world/freedom-world-2016>.

TABLE 9.1 *CMR Progress Summary: Dimensions and Countries*

Country	Power	Law	Institutions	Knowledge	Convergence	Effectiveness	Country Total ²	Country Average
Argentina	2.8	2.8	2.0	2.8	2.2	2.6	15.2	2.5
Brazil	1.7	1.2	1.1	1.4	1.3	1.8	8.5	1.4
Chile	2.7	2.4	2.0	1.2	1.8	2.4	12.5	2.1
Uruguay	2.0	1.9	1.8	0.9	1.8	1.6	10.0	1.7
Dimension Total¹	9.2	8.3	6.9	6.3	7.1	8.4	46.2³	
Dimension Average	2.3	2.1	1.7	1.6	1.8	2.1	11.6²	1.9

¹ Maximum 12

² Maximum 18

³ Maximum 72

Range: 0 = none; 1 = little; 2 = moderate; 3 = substantial

Source: Authors.

TABLE 9.2 *Dimensional Components, Subcomponents,¹ and Their Phases of Development*

Country	Transition		Consolidating		Consolidated	
	No.	%	No.	%	No.	%
Argentina	1	3.6	8	28.6	19	67.8
Brazil	11	39.3	13	46.4	4	14.3
Chile	4	14.3	13	46.4	11	39.3
Uruguay	8	28.6	14	50.0	6	21.4
Averages		21.5		42.8		35.7

¹ Subcomponents included brings the total to 28 in each row.
Source: Authors.

were progressing in step with the wider democratic system, one might expect to have seen much more evidence of full CMR consolidation. And yet nearly two-thirds of the dimensional components have not reached that phase, and more than a fifth are still in transition, meaning they are not compatible with the kind of civil-military relations expected in a full-fledged democracy.

All these measures indicate that progress in reforming CMR has generally lagged behind democratic gains in the subregion, revealing just how difficult it is to change civil-military patterns. Uneven progress has been made over the course of decades, but it has been slow and arduous. It should not be surprising that much more work needs to be done in reforming CMR across the four nations.

Before moving on to an analysis of country differences, it is worth briefly considering reasons why there is also a convergence between the four, since the variance in their progress scores does fall within a narrow range and achievements have been less than spectacular across the board. It was suggested in Chapters 1 and 2 that CMR reform might be especially difficult in a subregion like this one, where the security context is more relaxed, nations face no hostile neighbors, and the probability of armed conflict between them is remote. Defense reform in particular would not be high on the priority list for politicians within the Southern Cone because they are situated in a region which is remarkably free of interstate conflicts and security threats that would heighten concern about defense preparedness.² The region lies at the periphery of the international

² For a more complete analysis of these incentives and disincentives, see Pion-Berlin and Trinkunas, “Attention Deficits.”

system, and states there are not subjected to the security dilemmas, existential perils or arms races plaguing other regions of the world. South America remained untouched by fighting in the world wars and has, this century, escaped relatively unscathed from the scourge of international terrorism and more pointedly the long arm of Al Qaeda and ISIS.

Closer to home, the border disputes that once fueled geopolitical rivalries between Argentina and Brazil as well as Argentina and Chile have been settled diplomatically. Argentina took the lead, seeking to demilitarize and eliminate conflicts with its neighbors to undermine the rationale for large armies. It had greater success initially convincing Brazil, but eventually Chile came around as well, and all of the territorial disputes between those three countries were resolved. Those states no longer prepare for war and do not expect neighbors to either, suggesting to some theorists that the region has become a pluralistic security community, where nations acquire “deeply entrenched habits and practices of peaceful resolution of conflicts . . .”³ The Southern Cone countries have traded in hostilities for security cooperation. That cooperation has been solidified through institutions and transactions that routinize military to military contact, information exchange, common methodologies, joint peacekeeping forces, education, training and exercises, and ever deepening transparency.⁴

Consequently, in the context of a more relaxed regional security environment, politicians will not pay a hefty price for failing to pay adequate attention to defense issues, defense institutions, or military modernization. Even if a military is in a state of disrepair, which several are, that does not set off alarm bells in the capitals. Political leaders presume that the regional peace will hold, that their nations will not come under attack, and that they can turn their attention to other problems. They can and do set other priorities.

So too do voters. Voters themselves, undoubtedly aware of the peaceful security environment, are not animated about military or defense-related topics, which then reinforces disinterest among the political class. As previously mentioned in the opening passages of this book, the “no

³ See Andrea Oelsner, “Pluralistic Security Communities in Latin America,” in David R. Mares and Arie M. Kacowicz (eds.), *Routledge Handbook of Latin American Security* (London and New York: Routledge, 2016), 175. Oelsner also said, “... military and security rapprochement in this formerly unstable subregion has reached unthinkable levels” (180).

⁴ Kristina Mani, *Democratization and Military Transformation in Argentina and Chile: Rethinking Rivalry* (Boulder: First Forum Press, 2011).

TABLE 9.3 *Citizen Views on Top Priority Problems, 2011–15*

	Argentina	Brazil	Chile	Uruguay
Crime/public security	34.7 ¹	8.5	20.2	37.1
Problems with neighboring countries	.07	0	.1	.07
Border conflicts	.1	0	.1	0

“In your opinion, which is the most important problem in the country?” There were 30 responses of which 27 were substantive items. The remainder were none, don’t know, or no response. Defense issues always placed at or near the bottom of priorities for all countries.¹ All figures are percentages and averages for 2011, 2013, and 2015 combined.

Source: Latinobarómetro, Analysis Online, 2011, 2013, 2015, www.latinobarometro.org/latOnline.jsp.

coup, no problem” mentality is pervasive in the region. If the armed forces are not up to trouble, voters are not paying attention to them and their concerns. And while defense may be an essential public good, it is not perceived by these citizens as a pressing national priority. In recent years, citizens have been polled on what they consider to be the most serious problems facing their nations. They were specifically asked for views on border conflict and neighboring country problems which serve as proxies for concern over the nation’s defenses. Year after year, only a fraction of a percent ever mentions either as a priority item. This is in contrast to mentions of crime and public security, which always rate at or near the top. The results are shown in Table 9.3.

Militaries have, from time to time, been asked to step in to help confront threats to public security from criminal organizations such as drug traffickers or gangs. But these threats do not compel the kind of wholesale belligerent responses that test the capabilities of the military institution or provide a rationale for building up defense capabilities or institutions. If armies from the Southern Cone and Brazil are asked to intervene, which happens rarely, they usually do so in a limited, temporary way via logistical support, aerial surveillance (Argentina), police-like patrols (Uruguay), or the occasional crime sweep through favelas (Brazil).⁵ These restricted missions are not enough to grab the sustained attention of voters.

It is reasonable to conclude that a disinterested Southern Cone voting public would not exert any political pressures on elites to demonstrate leadership on military and defense reform, nor would they punish those

⁵ Pion-Berlin and Trinkunas, “Attention Deficits,” 87.

elites for failing to do so. There are practically no electoral incentives for politicians, especially legislators, to care about defense. For example, defense contracting is not a big business as it is in the United States. Military installations and defense industries generate very few civilian jobs, and thus legislators cannot curry favor with constituents by attending to defense issues or budgets. They see no gain to be had in becoming defense savvy since they cannot deliver defense jobs to their districts in exchange for many votes. Those few voters who have defense jobs constitute such a small proportion of the public that they are in no position to adequately reward political leaders for attention to defense issues.⁶

These realities bring us back to the puzzle presented at the end of Chapter 2. If these countries are situated in a low-risk security context and voters care little about defense, why would political leaders from this subregion *ever* pay attention to civil-military reform? Why would they make any progress at all? It was hypothesized that voter apathy – as undesirable as that may be – may have ironically granted policymakers the political leeway to craft reforms *were they motivated to do so*. Where reforms are not expensive (i.e. ministerial reorganization, passage of new defense laws) and thus do not result in any harmful guns-versus-butter trade-offs, there are no electoral costs to the government for pursuing such changes. Taxpayers would not get exorcized by decisions that do not pinch their pocketbooks.

That seems reasonable, but what would properly incentivize political leaders to pursue CMR reforms in the first place? Without citizen pressure, it becomes that much more difficult for political leaders to muster the will, conviction, and sense of purpose that something must be done to reform CMR. That compels a consideration of country differences because, as we will find out, the level at which political leaders and policymakers were inspired to pursue CMR reforms *did* vary. Moreover, the constraints and choices available to governments at different periods of time were not exactly the same either. As Table 9.1 shows, Argentina has made the most progress, followed by Chile, Uruguay, and Brazil in that order. And comparatively speaking, Argentina and Chile, taken together, have been higher achievers than have Uruguay and Brazil. What accounts for these differences?

⁶ In the previously cited study, the last one done on this topic, my co-author and I found civilians in the private defense sector in Argentina, Brazil, and Chile constituted, on average, just 0.03 percent of the registered voters. See p. 88.

COUNTRY PATTERNS

To conceptualize these patterns, we will distinguish between motivations and opportunities for CMR reform.⁷ Policymakers must want the change, and their desire has to be provoked by some causal agent(s). At the same time, the prospects for change are always constrained by the chances that avail themselves. The room for maneuver may be narrow or broad, depending on the political context. First to be analyzed are the motivations and opportunities shaped by the period of authoritarian rule and the subsequent democratic transition, followed by an assessment of later influences during a period of democratic consolidation.⁸ In both scenarios, the focus will be on some – not all – dimensions and components to the CMR.

There are two reasonable scenarios to contemplate. The first suggests that the founding conditions before and during the transfer from authoritarian to democratic hands can have a lasting impact on CMR. The transition is a fluid period where options present themselves and numerous actors jockey for position. But once deals are made and conditions are laid down, then, as institutional and path-dependent theorists would argue, what is done cannot be easily undone. The window of opportunity for change closes, as the terms of transition become embedded, reproduced, and reinforced via laws, power balances, and forged institutional arrangements, setting a kind of trajectory for the nation to move along.⁹ Some future options get locked in, while others are cast by the wayside. Only major crises that shake up the status quo could upset long periods of stability.¹⁰ Barring that unlikely scenario, subsequent differences between the four countries can be directly traced back to events at the inauguration of the reborn democracy.

Alternatively, it can be hypothesized that early influences help to shape the future, but incompletely. The future is more open-ended than those theorists would have it. Constraints can be broken, and powerful

⁷ This borrows and slightly amends terminology devised decades ago by Finer in *The Man on Horseback*.

⁸ These causal factors are exogenous to the civil-military relation itself. The authoritarian legacies predate the emergence of the contemporary CMR. Later influences, to be described below, are contiguous with the CMR but external to it.

⁹ Paul Pierson, *Politics in Time: History, Institutions, and Social Analysis* (Princeton: Princeton University Press, 2004); Kathleen Thelen, *How Institutions Evolve: The Political Economy of Skills in Germany, Britain, the United States, and Japan* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2004).

¹⁰ Stephen D. Krasner, "Approaches to the State: Alternative Conceptions and Historical Dynamics," *Comparative Politics*, 16, 2 (January 1984), 223–46.

influences at the transitional phase can dissipate while new forces emerge. As some rational choice and alternative institutional approaches would argue, that is especially so when actors who had been there at the outset to enforce favored arrangements are no longer present or have been irrevocably weakened, while new actors on the political stage are incentivized to devise alternative arrangements based on their self-interests.¹¹ Institutions, as Thelen argues, “are the object of ongoing political contestation,” predicated on changes in political coalitions over time.¹² Those new coalitional players can alter what were once unwavering “rules of the game,” through constitutional and other legal reforms, and they can exploit democratic opportunities that could not have been foreshadowed by founding conditions.

Our view is that both approaches have merit and should be integrated into an explanation for CMR reforms both old and new. Early influences matter because some structures, laws, actors, and even norms do persist over long stretches of time. Where those persistent elements favor reform, they can give some nations a head start in the process of transforming the CMR that reaps dividends long into the future. Where they favor the status quo, they can drag other countries down, forestalling reforms.

But countries can also veer off the course initially set for them. Unanticipated events exogenous to the domestic political scene along with the unforeseen arrival of new, powerful players setting alternative agendas are just two of the ways in which a country can diverge from the path originally set for it. With those thoughts in mind, this chapter will first search for causes that arise from authoritarian legacies and regime transitions. Then it will explore forces that arise later during the period of democratic consolidation.

Early Country Influences on the CMR: Motivations and Opportunities

Though all these nations emerged from military-dominated, authoritarian rule, those regime legacies differed. Arguably, governments and citizens

¹¹ Wendy Hunter makes this argument using rational choice theory. See her *Eroding Military Influence in Brazil*, 7–16. Also see Ellen M. Immergut’s alternative institutional approach, “The Rules of the Game: The Logic of Health Policy-Making in France, Switzerland, and Sweden,” in Sven Steinmo, Kathleen Thelen, and Frank Longstreth (eds.) *Structuring Politics: Historical Institutionalism in Comparative Perspective* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1992), 57–89.

¹² Thelen, *How Institutions Evolve*, 31.

would be most emphatic about changing the civil-military relation where military-authoritarian regimes inflicted the deepest wounds, producing the most painful reminders of what had happened and what could happen again should the military not be reined in.¹³ Those military regimes that were less repressive should, in turn, have induced a less intense public and governmental reaction, with fewer calls for reform. Civilians will not be so quick to blame any misfortunes on the outgoing military leaders and may even compare authoritarian regimes favorably to contemporary democracies.

At the same time, reactions to the past are complicated by legacies that are multi-faceted. Thus, the impact of repression has to be placed alongside the economic performance of the *de facto* regime. Military regimes that bequeath a robust, stable economy to their democratic successors will earn some legitimacy for having done so, notwithstanding their harsh treatment of the political opposition. Certainly not all will be forgiven, and economic successes will never erase the painful memories of state terror, especially when wide swaths of society had been impacted. Political and economic policies always have distributional consequences. Some portion of the public less directly harmed by the repression that had also benefited economically would be more willing to grant the military high marks for achieving economic successes. By contrast, those who bore the brunt of repression and painful economic adjustments will be less forgiving in the future.¹⁴ Democratic policymakers, too, may be grateful for having been left an economy in relatively good shape and hence less motivated to take on reforms that might displease the armed forces. On the other hand, policymakers who were dealt with an economy in crisis would display no such gratitude and might be tempted to reform should they have the leeway to do so.

However motivated government and society may be to reform the CMR, those impulses are tempered by the opportunities that avail themselves. The structure of opportunities is either widened or narrowed according to the degree of power wielded by the military as it exits from office. That quotient of power is itself a by-product of how well the generals performed while in office, the coherence of their regimes, and

¹³ Zoltan Barany makes a similar point about the positive effects of excessive militarism in the past motivating a stronger dedication to democratic civil-military relations in the future. See his *The Soldier and the Changing State*, 346.

¹⁴ Stephan Haggard and Robert R. Kaufman, *The Political Economy of Democratic Transitions* (Princeton: Princeton University Press, 1995), 7–9.

the rationality of their exit strategies, if those existed at all.¹⁵ Military institutions that were able to extricate themselves from office brimming with confidence and united down through the ranks could exert a more powerful influence over the transition and the nascent democracy. Conversely, armies that left office disunited and in disarray were in a weakened position and would fail to leave any indelible mark on the transition or on future policy.¹⁶ These motivational factors and opportunity structures can be employed to assess what kind of starting positions each of these democracies had.

Argentina

Among the four countries, Argentina clearly had the advantage to take on robust CMR reforms. Its democracy was in the enviable position of having tremendous incentives to reform and ample opportunities to do so. The *Proceso* military regime (1976–83) unleashed unprecedented levels of state terror against a remarkably wide cross-section of society. As shown in Figure 9.2, deaths and disappearances as a proportion of the population far exceeded its Southern Cone neighbors. In its wake, the regime left so many victims that it was difficult to find any beneficiaries. Survivors in a future democratic system would undoubtedly want justice to be served. Economically, the regime's pursuit of neo-liberal adjustments harmed nearly every sector of society, setting it apart from the economic experiments launched by the other Southern Cone regimes. The military regime would earn particular notoriety for presiding over one of the worst economic disasters of its time. These policy blunders shattered the regime's self-confidence, promoted divisions within its ranks, and dissuaded officers from remaining in office following the devastating loss to the British in the Malvinas War. Accordingly, the regime collapsed under the weight of its own immorality and incompetence and was unable to exert any influence over the terms of transition to democratic rule.

Democratic Argentina registered near unanimous disgust over the *Proceso* regime and a determination to curtail the military's political power. In the early to mid-1980s polls indicated that the public had a very low regard for the armed forces, ranking them last or near last among

¹⁵ Ibid. Also see Craig Arceneaux, *Bounded Missions*, 1–30.

¹⁶ Agüero, *Soldiers, Civilians and Democracy*; Pion-Berlin and Arceneaux, "Tipping the Civil-Military Balance," 633–61.

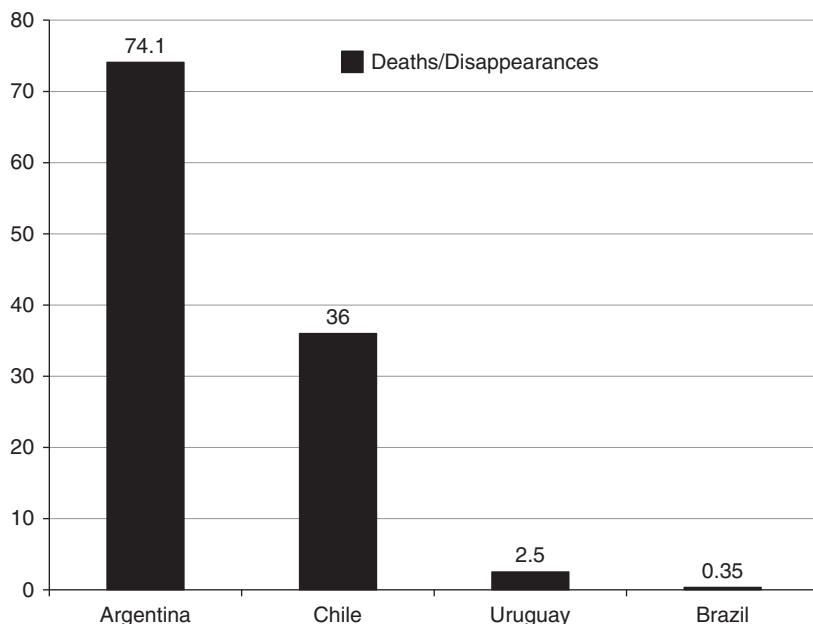


FIGURE 9.2 Deaths/Disappearances per 100,000

Sources: Authors calculated final figures on deaths/disappearances from data compiled from following sources: Argentina: various *Amnesty International Reports* and Anthony Pereira, *Political (In)Justice: Authoritarianism, and the Rule of Law in Brazil, Chile, and Argentina* (Pittsburgh: University of Pittsburgh Press, 2005), 21; Chile: *Report of the Chilean National Commission on Truth and Reconciliation* (Notre Dame, IN: Notre Dame University Press, 1993), Vol. II, 900; Servicio Paz y Justicia, *Uruguay, Nunca Más: Human Rights Violations, 1972–1985* (Philadelphia, PA: Temple University Press, 1992), 177–78, 343–347; Brazil: *Torture in Brazil: A Report of the Archdiocese of São Paulo* (New York: Vintage Books, 1986), and Pereira, *Political (In)Justice*, 21.

national institutions.¹⁷ Meanwhile support for trials against military perpetrators consistently polled at more than 70 percent.¹⁸ Parties across the ideological spectrum (and most importantly the PJ and UCR) concurred that the military must be rendered subordinate to civilians, re-socialized to subscribe to democratic values, and cut back monetarily.¹⁹ In sum,

¹⁷ Alison Brysk, *The Politics of Human Rights in Argentina* (Redwood City, CA: Stanford University Press, 1994), 130.

¹⁸ *Ibid.*, 127–30.

¹⁹ Walter Little, “Civil-Military Relations in Contemporary Argentina.” *Government and Opposition*. 19 (Spring 1984), 207–24.

government and society alike were keenly motivated to bring perpetrators to justice, strip the military of prerogatives, and ensure its subordination to democratic civilian control well into the future. The military did not have the capacity to contest any of this in the short run. Thus, Argentina could initiate CMR reforms quite early and did so, however incomplete and imperfect those reforms may have been. That is significant because it gave Argentina a head start on its neighbors. It sets a foundation of new power relations, laws, and revamped institutions that policymakers decades hence could build upon – and did.

Chile

The Chilean scenario was one of ample motivations but very limited opportunities. Under the military regime led by General Pinochet, Chile had become the world's pariah state, condemned universally for its gross violations of human rights. Though fewer were killed or disappeared than in Argentina, some 3,800 citizens lost their lives, more than 33,000 were imprisoned, and 94 percent of those were tortured.²⁰ The regime also lasted considerably longer than the Argentine dictatorship (17 years versus 7), thus subjecting its opponents to more enduring deprivations of basic rights. This harsh legacy of repression certainly gave rise to views not unlike those found in Argentina.

But those who advocated for reform were, unlike their Argentine counterparts, stymied by a transitional context that availed them few opportunities. The military earned some credit for its economic performance. Chile had become the poster child for neo-liberal economic adjustment. Borrowing heavily from the “Chicago Boys” led by Milton Friedman, Pinochet's economic architects pursued a harsh blend of fiscal austerity, state shrinkage, wage suppression, privatization, and trade liberalization. They were credited with restoring growth with low inflation while stimulating export expansion and foreign investment. Macro-economic stability came at the cost of extreme inequalities, as real wages suffered and the percent of those living in poverty rose sharply. Those who were most adversely affected by the free market economic model were also those most impacted by the repression.

²⁰ República de Chile, Comisión Valech, *Informe de la Comisión Nacional sobre Prisión Política y Tortura*, November, 2004, 229–30. www.derechoshumanos.net/paises/América/derechos-humanos-Chile/informes-comisiones/Informe-Comision-Valech.pdf.

But macro-economic successes nonetheless redounded in favor of the outgoing military leaders who remained confident, united, and determined to flex their muscles in defense of privileges and prerogatives won during the *de facto* years.²¹ The military also benefited enormously from Pinochet's leadership. He kept the regime unified, strategically focused, and "unharrassed by politicization and factionalism . . ." ²² Consequently, the armed forces designed and scheduled the transfer of power to civilian hands mostly on their terms, putting themselves in position to secure significant advantages within the reborn democratic order – at least in the short to medium term.

That meant CMR reform in Chile would be delayed, not buried. Enough citizens and politicians were still eager to see perpetrators brought to justice and the military as a whole converted into a subordinate, respectful servant of a democratic state. But they were equally cognizant of the fact that their aspirations would have to be put on hold until future conditions permitted the balance of power to shift away from the generals.

Uruguay

The lack of progress in Uruguay in transforming practically any dimension of civil-military affairs – at least through 2005 – would have suggested early influences similar to Chile's: reforms held in check by a domineering, self-confident armed forces. And yet that was not at all how the transition unfolded. The armed forces that left office in 1985 were neither victorious as in Chile nor vanquished as in Argentina; they occupied a middle ground.

Military leaders could never control the terms of transition, frustrated by economic misfortunes and a flawed exit strategy on their part. After steady growth in the mid- to late 1970s, serious economic declines set in by the 1980s. Economic elites who had previously been supportive of the regime's policies turned hostile by 1982, adding to the chorus of complaints heard from other sectors. Compounding the difficulties for the regime was its failed effort to win public support in 1980 for a new Constitution (see Chapter 2). This represented the beginning of the end for the dictatorship, as top-ranking officers began to distance themselves from

²¹ The relationship between performance evaluation and the ability of the military to stay unified was clarified in Agüero, *Soldiers, Civilians and Democracy*, 30–31.

²² Arceneaux, *Bounded Missions*, 108.

power holders, separating the military as an institution from the military regime itself. This split weakened the armed forces before and during the transition just enough to create a stalemate with the democratic opposition, making a negotiated transition inevitable and ensuring that neither side would enjoy a decisive advantage.²³

Those conditions would have predicted narrower opportunities for CMR reform than in Argentina but considerably wider possibilities than in Chile. Yet Uruguay did not take advantage of the political spaces that did open up. Why not? For one, the political death toll from the dictatorship was substantially smaller than in Argentina or Chile, as shown in Figure 9.2. According to Serpaj report, *Nunca Más*, 32 people died in detention, seven more from political homicides, and 32 were forcefully disappeared and presumed dead, for a total of 71.²⁴ To put this in context, more people were killed or disappeared in Argentina in an average week between 1976 and 1980 than in Uruguay during the entire dictatorship. Hence, there was comparatively less in the way of urgent societal demands for retribution or military power curtailment.

This is not to minimize the suffering of many Uruguayans at the hands of the dictatorship inside its notorious prisons and the desire of many survivors to see justice served.²⁵ But, as political scientist Luis E. González pointed out years ago, citizens made a careful distinction between what was ethically right and politically feasible.²⁶ Many, in fact most, were persuaded that on the issue of human rights, inquests and trials would only reopen wounds, triggering military reprisals. Those fears were amplified by President Sanguinetti himself, who had issued dire warnings of what would befall the nation should his proposed amnesty for military offenders go down to defeat following refusals by military officers to appear in court when cited.²⁷ Though the armed forces were not dominant during this period, they did draw the line when it came to putting their men in the dock. Enough citizens were convinced that the best

²³ Charles Guy Gillespie, *Negotiating Democracy: Politicians and Generals in Uruguay* (New York: Cambridge University Press, 1991), 108, 186.

²⁴ Servicio Paz y Justicia, *Uruguay Nunca Más*, 177–78, 345–46.

²⁵ In the fall of 1986, 72 percent of those Uruguayans polled favored punishment for human rights offenders. See Neil J. Krietz (ed.), *Transitional Justice: How Emerging Democracies Reckon with Former Regimes*. Vol. 2. (Washington, DC: United States Institute for Peace, 1995), 400.

²⁶ González, *Political Structures and Democracy in Uruguay*.

²⁷ Sam Ferguson, “Uruguayan Voters Reject Chance to Prosecute Dictators,” October 28, 2009. Truth-out.org.

strategy was to put the past behind them as a means of ensuring democratic survival. Thus, despite their best efforts, human rights organizations in Uruguay could not convince the public to overturn the 1986 amnesty law (*Ley de Caducidad*), which had left military and police perpetrators off the hook for human rights violations.

Once the amnesty law was upheld, it had the effect of taking “*la cuestión militar*” off the political table. It was not just a matter of sweeping human rights aside. From that point forward, Uruguayan elites and masses seemed disinterested in advancing *any* CMR reform agenda, despite the fact that the armed forces were not prepared to lay down the gauntlet on other issues. There was an anti-militarism in Uruguay, but it can best be described as passive in nature, unlike the more active anti-militarism that energized Argentina and Chile. Perhaps voters and politicians agreed with President Sanguinetti’s view that a page had been turned, and the nation could now look toward the future without fear of reversal.²⁸ If this was the deal, then for Uruguay, democracy itself was the only antidote needed to inoculate itself against an authoritarian reversion. In short, the early post-authoritarian years presented some occasions for change, but most citizens and political leaders were not motivated to take advantage of them.

Brazil

Compared to Argentina or Chile, Brazil suffered far fewer political murders in absolute or per capita terms (see Figure 9.2), and its political prisoner population per 100,000 was the smallest of the four nations. This can, in part, be traced back to the fact that the Brazilian military regime was always torn when it came to repression versus conciliation. Though hardliners dominated from 1968 to 1973, their actions set off efforts by soft-liners to rein in the perpetrators of state terror while establishing a dialogue with the opposition. Beginning especially under President Ernesto Geisel (1974–79), the regime learned the value of legitimation, which is why unlike its Southern Cone neighbors, it permitted a legislature to function that brought the moderate civilians on board with a strategy of gradual but sustained liberalization. That in turn eased restrictions on political liberties and eventually led to a return to democratic rule.

²⁸ Pion-Berlin, “To Prosecute or to Pardon?,” 105–30.

The long road to democracy advanced according to the military's own terms, agenda, and timetable for political and economic reasons. Politically, the regime employed unifying strategies predicated on tight discipline, collegiality, rule-based presidential successions, and a policy of keeping distance between the military organization and the government.²⁹ Institutional unity also derived from economic successes. The regime had presided over what was coined the "economic miracle," which featured six years (1968–74) of sustained growth rates close to 10 percent and solid growth thereafter to finish out the decade – an unrivaled accomplishment in Latin America. The record was tarnished somewhat during the final years of military rule, when the economy went into a tailspin after the second oil embargo. But the recession bottomed out by 1983, and 1984 witnessed a recovery with growth at 4.5 percent. The overall picture was one of solid military economic stewardship, which won the generals admirers as they exited power.

In short, the Brazilian military commanded the transition, which restricted the opportunities for CMR reform. But if the chances for CMR reform were few, the motivation to reform was also weak. By the time the handover occurred in 1985, it had been more than 12 years since the worst of the repression, diluting the sense of urgency to revisit that period through inquests and trials. Even then, as told, the human toll from state terror was not extensive enough to cause a sizeable backlash.³⁰ The public at the time was overwhelmingly preoccupied with social and economic issues, not defense, the military, or human rights. There was no firm constituency behind CMR reform and no one to lead it, since political parties were focused on labor rights and other social issues and not prepared to expend a huge amount of political capital to curtail military prerogatives. That being said, there were a few victories at the time because congressmen had some incentives to contest the military. For instance, while the military retained the constitutional right to maintain its role as guarantor of law and order, revisions of that constitution mandated it could only intervene at the behest of the president or governors.³¹

²⁹ Hunter, *Eroding Military Influence in Brazil*, 29–31; Craig Arceneaux, *Bounded Missions*, 154.

³⁰ Thomas E. Skidmore, *The Politics of Military Rule in Brazil: 1964–85* (New York: Oxford University Press, 1988), 269.

³¹ Hunter, *Eroding Military Influence in Brazil*, 57–60.

What Do Early Influences Tell Us?

The early influences are summarized in Table 9.4. As shown, the incentives to reform and the occasions to do so varied between the four countries, as did the results. Argentina had the most favorable combination of motives and opportunities and has taken advantage of those. Reform agents in Chile were determined but stymied by military-imposed constraints. And actors in Uruguay and Brazil were not sufficiently stirred to reform, nor did they have wide opportunities.

Early influences are necessary for an explanation of future CMR reforms but insufficient. Some of the patterns of change observed later on seem consistent with conditions, but others do not. In brief, there is great consistency between the transition-era motivations and opportunities in Argentina and contemporary accomplishments. Notwithstanding the temporary setbacks of 1987–90 during the *carapintada* rebellions, Argentina’s achievements are ones that were largely pre-ordained. It is hard to imagine today’s Argentina without factoring in the collapse of the *Proceso* dictatorship and just how politically and institutionally weakened the armed forces were as a consequence; they would remain so for decades to come. And yet progress was not steady over the course of three decades. There were just a few CMR changes to speak of in Argentina between the late 1980s and the turn of the new century. Then, beginning around 2003 and continuing for the next seven years, reform acquired a new lease on life, under the leadership of Nestor Kirchner and Cristina Fernández Kirchner. Why, and why then?

Chile’s recent gains, on the other hand, seem surprising in light of its past. Prospects were extremely limited during the early 1990s, and almost all scholars had forecast a dismal future for that country’s democracy. But

TABLE 9.4 *Early CMR Influences: Gauging Motivations, Opportunities, and Results*

Country	Motivations	Opportunities	Results
Argentina	High	High	Demands for change strong, reforms undertaken
Chile	High	Low	Demands for change strong, few reforms undertaken, most deferred
Uruguay	Low	Medium	No reforms, few demands for
Brazil	Low	Low	A few reforms, few demands for

Source: Authors.

the early predictors did demonstrate why motivations for change would be strong back then; they were, and they persisted. The legacy of harsh repression stood as a constant reminder that civilians would have to do something to subordinate the military to their control, and eventually they did. It was a matter of waiting for conditions to avail themselves by the turn of the new century and for leaders who were prepared to seize the opportunity. But what were those conditions, and who led the charge?

In Uruguay and Brazil, motivations to take on ambitious CMR reforms during the transition years were not nearly as strong as they were in Argentina and Chile – a trend that has largely persisted through time. In that respect, the early influences serve a comprehensive explanation, but incompletely. Politicians had some chances to advance reforms in Uruguay but chose not to take them. The desire to settle, once and for all, the human rights issue seemed to consume the first post-authoritarian presidency, leaving no political resolve for other civil-military issues. Why then did two *Frente Amplio* governments (2005 and 2010) discover a new resolve, some 20 years hence?

In Brazil, motivations and opportunities for CMR alterations were comparatively low in the immediate post-authoritarian era, and they more or less remained that way until the turn of the new century. Afterward, incremental CMR reforms did take place, though not on a par with Argentina or Chile. But even smaller efforts undertaken during the Lula and Rousseff administrations cannot be adequately explained by a reference to the past. What then could account for those gains?

In sum, early influences matter because at least the motivational trajectories they set for all four countries seem generally consistent with the levels of achievement displayed decades later. Early opportunities for reform meanwhile are consistent with CMR reform levels in Argentina and Brazil, though less so in the case of Chile and Uruguay. Meanwhile, a flurry of CMR reforms – many of them quite substantial, others less so – would occur from about the beginning of the new century on through the middle of this century's second decade. It is the timing, direction, and intensity of more contemporary CMR reforms in all four countries that the early influences do not adequately address, and that must be accounted for. What prompted change? Why were modifications pursued at these points in time and not before? And what was the political environment that permitted these changes to go forward? To simplify matters, the narratives that follow will address certain dimensions to the

CMR – not all. Nonetheless, these are important ones that ultimately should have a bearing on the entire complex of relations. They are reducing military power (especially over human rights) while enhancing civilian control, changing the defense and military-related laws, and reforming the defense institutions.

Later Country Influences on CMR Reform: Motivations and Opportunities

There is a systemic cause that should be briefly considered when contemplating opportunities for CMR reform, which brings us back to the discussion in Chapter 1. The democracy can be visualized as a collection of interlocking subsystems, or what is referred to as partial regimes. The CMR, as one partial regime, has a relation with the larger democratic system to which it is linked. As shown in Figure 1.3, there is an iterative process of change where democratic and CMR developments can nudge each other along. When CMR has advanced beyond its first phase, when there has been a sufficient alteration in the balance of civil-military power, democratic leaders can govern as sovereigns, free from the threat of military provocation or takeover.

But further CMR progress then depends in part on democratic gains. With the military threat dissipating, CMR reform is no longer a priority item, but other issues are. Questions of democratic quality rise to the top of the political agenda: governmental performance, rule of law, representation, responsiveness, accountability (both vertical and horizontal) – not to mention public perceptions of democratic progress. Optimality is not the benchmark for democratic success along these dimensions; sufficiency is. Serious problems remain, but at some point, the system has advanced enough so that it has, as Diamond puts it, “crossed some threshold of stability, of solidity, of consensus.”³²

Hence, it is plausible that with the passage of enough time, the four countries had, by the turn of the new century, made enough headway in the task of democratic deepening such that political leaders now felt comfortable not only in revisiting civil-military themes that had laid dormant for years but in pushing beyond initial preoccupations with military praetorianism to concerns about effectively governing the military within the defense sector. This could help account for the timing of new CMR reforms that seemed to be concentrated in the period between

³² Diamond et al., “Reconsidering the Transition Paradigm,” 94.

2000 and 2015. By the early 2000s, it had been two decades since the transfer of power from authoritarian to democratic hands for Argentina, Brazil, and Uruguay and a decade-plus for Chile. Enough water had passed under the bridge for these nations to have moved from what Andrew Cottey et al. described as first-generation problems of curtailing military autonomy to second-generation problems of governing the defense and security sectors. The second-generational phase is more germane to consolidating democracies, where attention turns to state capacity building, “the ability of democratic state structures to provide for the effective management of the armed forces and defense policy.”³³

In short, the suggestion is that political opportunities for CMR reform will open up (or not) depending on progress within the larger democratic system. And yet the democratic deepening thesis gets us only so far. It reveals something about the general political context that may have made CMR reform opportune but does not account for what inspired particular governments to act. Even if democracies in this subregion had consolidated many of their gains by then, not all governments took full advantage of it. For that reason, another aspect to the timing of these late-stage reforms, which requires a much more elaborate explanation, will be considered.

Nearly all of these late CMR reforms correspond to the arrival of leftwing governments. In fact, a review of policy during the entire democratic period since the transition from authoritarian rule reveals that approximately 70 percent of the key CMR changes occurred under left-leaning presidents assuming power in the twenty-first century, as shown in Figure 9.3. This is all the more striking when one considers that during this period, left and center-left governments held power only 43 percent of the time. There were 63 significant reforms implemented between the four countries.³⁴ Of these, 16 occurred under right and center-right parties, three under centrist parties, and 44 under left and center-left parties.

It is also an odd trend when considering the array of policies advanced by these more progressive administrations. It would be one thing if those left-leaning governments had confined themselves to only policies of retribution and subjugation, punishing past abuses while curtailing military influence.

³³ Cottey et al., “The Second Generation Problematic,” 40.

³⁴ For all countries we counted the most important pieces of legislation for all six dimensions, including key constitutional amendments; key policy document releases, including white books, national strategic plans, and defense plans; inauguration of essential changes to defense ministerial structure and operations; reforms to joint military staffs and military enterprises; commencement of human rights inquiries and trials; formation of human rights commissions and the release of their reports; and creation of PKO training centers.

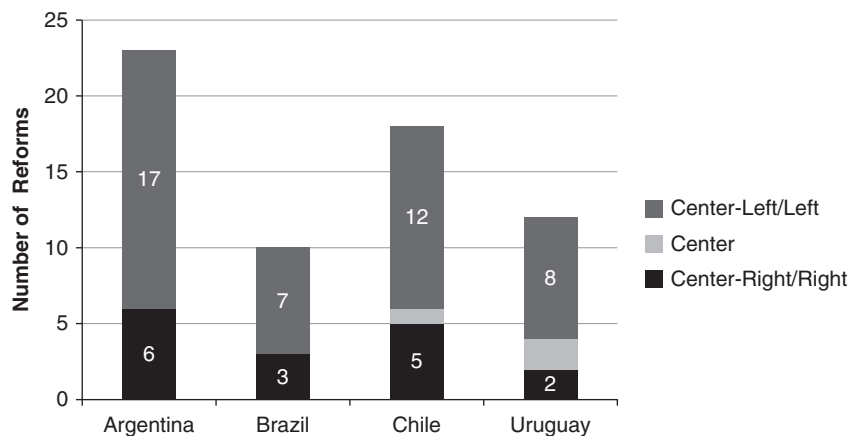


FIGURE 9.3 CMR Reforms and Presidential Ideology

Source: Authors. Presidential ideologies were based on appraisals of members of the president's own parties

Or coalitions within the legislature. Legislators were asked to situate their presidents on a scale, with 1 being furthest left and 10 furthest right. Data elaborated by authors from *Elites Parlamentarias de América Latina* (PELA) Instituto Interuniversitario de Iberoamérica, Universidad de Salamanca.

That is what we would expect from leftists, whose preferences derive from age-old clashes between the military in alliance with its propertied class and conservative party allies versus leftwing parties and their trade union, peasant, and student allies. Those clashes were not only magnified by the Cold War but deadly, as rightwing forces in society found ready allies in the bureaucratic authoritarian state, whose security forces turned on labor and the left with a vengeance. If memories of those conflicts are firmly embedded in the political parties that come to power, they would easily explain the desire to revisit, reveal, and litigate the crimes committed in the name of national security. Even more to the point, if presidents representing left-leaning parties had been victims themselves of state-sanctioned terror, motivations to seek justice would be all the stronger.

But these modern-day leftists have defied expectations, moving well beyond the realm of truth and justice to take on a myriad of military and defense reforms, many of which resemble those undertaken by mainstream political parties in more developed countries. The leftwing legacy in Latin America would not predict a predilection for designing better defense ministries and defense policies and, in the case of Chile and Brazil, backing ambitious, expensive modernization plans for all branches of the armed services. Moreover, leftist parties could not find any real electoral

advantages to pursuing CMR reforms of this sort. Polls taken just prior to the election of left-of-center presidents demonstrate that voters did not prioritize human rights or military and defense-related themes.³⁵ In light of these facts, it is perhaps remarkable that anything has been accomplished in the realm of CMR, let alone under leftwing rule.

It turns out that the left's desire for justice is also its impetus to consider other kinds of CMR policies. There is a logical link between investigating and punishing past offenses, the desire to curtail military influence via civilian control mechanisms, and the quest to revamp the defense sector and reform the military. If judicial inquests and trials are the remedies for military human rights crimes of the past, then civilian control is the insurance policy taken out so that soldiers do not return to power and criminality in the future. Settling old scores in the courtroom is one of the tools democratic states use to erode military power by putting offenders on notice that the age of impunity has come to an end; that the armed forces are no longer the omnipotent actor they once were. But that is not enough. A left-leaning government can be, at least initially, primarily preoccupied with redressing injustices of the past and yet come to understand its limits while devising sounder, more permanent civilian control measures in the present, which in turn can facilitate deeper reforms in defense and the military. Using the "stick" of judicial retribution alone is often short-sighted. It can tilt the scales of power toward civilians for a while but cannot ensure the scales remain that way. Second, sending past offenders off to prison leaves unanswered how to deal with the current crop of officers with no ties to a dark past who may merit a government that knows how to lead on defense.

That is why even left-leaning governments learn that some combination of sticks and carrots is a preferred strategy. Raising defense budgets is one response, and as shown in Chapter 8, spending on the military increased under left-of-center rule in Argentina, Brazil, and Chile – itself an unexpected move for progressives. But a reliance on appeasement via material rewards has its own risks, not the least of which is that it can tempt the military to ask for more next time, in essence upping the ante as the price for compliance. The granting of material rewards is but one in a menu of options within a strategy of military containment. This is a "low-cost approach" to civilian control whose menu of options includes the use of civilian coalition building, carrots and sticks, accommodation,

³⁵ Poll data from Latinobarómetro, Analysis Online, for Argentina, 2002–6, Chile, 1999–2006, Uruguay 2004–10, Brazil 2001–10. www.latinobarometro.org/latOnline.jsp.

and, to be described below, delegation. These measures require minimal resources, staff, bureaucracy, and expertise.³⁶ They gain the government some leverage but do not build self-sustaining capacity for the longer haul.

The alternative, “higher-cost” version of civilian control is an institutional endeavor that builds capacity by embedding civilian control mechanisms within refurbished defense organizations, especially the defense ministry.³⁷ Institutions have a tendency to persist, and if they can be arranged to maximize civilian leadership, authority, input, and oversight, then control can be achieved for the longer term. Beyond control, a revamped defense ministry can serve as the linchpin to designing more effective defense policies and to reorienting the military so that it better serves a democratic nation at peace. In short, the higher-cost alternative moves the country more decisively (though not completely) toward a set of consolidated civil-military relations.

ARGENTINA AND CHILE: HIGHER ACHIEVERS

These are two divergent civilian control paths, one easier and the other more difficult. The first, lower-cost path does not logically lead to institutionalized defense and military reforms; the second, higher-cost path does and helps explain why Argentina and Chile have been higher achievers than Uruguay and Brazil. Looking back on the evidence presented in Chapters 3–8, it is clear that Argentina and Chile pushed harder on human rights, legal changes, and ministerial strengthening than did Uruguay or Brazil.

The sequence of steps begins with shifts in the balance of political power that permit advances in human rights. Left-leaning Argentine President Nestor Kirchner launched his human rights offensive at the dawn of his tenure, picking up where President Raul Alfonsín had left off 14 years before. He was under no political pressure to do so, and the vigor with which he pursued this policy caught many by surprise. But the timing was right, as the military had already been sufficiently weakened politically in the years and decades prior. There would be periodic grumbling but no direct challenge to the president’s authority. At Kirchner’s prodding, the *Punto Final* and *Obedencia Debida* statutes were annulled legislatively (see Chapter 3), unleashing a torrent of judicial activity.

³⁶ Trinkunas, *Crafting Civilian Control*, 18–19. ³⁷ Ibid.

What were Kirchner's motives to take up such an ambitious human rights agenda? Neither he nor his wife, Cristina, were principled ideologues, nor were they personally victimized during the *Proceso*. President Kirchner's leftward tilt, and his push for justice, is consistent, though, with his past.³⁸ In his youth, he joined a university federation that had sympathies with the *Montoneros*. He later affiliated with the Peronist Youth Movement, whose ranks had been persecuted by the dictatorship, and later still forged an internal party movement, "*Corriente Peronista*," that broke with Menem over the latter's disregard for human rights. Thus, Kirchner was experientially predisposed to act as he did.

In Chile, shifts in the balance of power and the pursuit of human rights justice triggered change as well. As mentioned in Chapter 3, the arrest and verdict against General Pinochet in London in 1998 deflated his stature, reduced his influence, and released pent-up pressures for justice with his return to Chile in March 2000 when he was stripped of his legislative immunity. President Ricardo Lagos signaled that it was time for the Chilean courts to demonstrate their resolve, and they took him up on the challenge, issuing indictments against Pinochet and hundreds of other military officers.³⁹ Lagos, like his successor Michele Bachelet, had the motivation and the moral authority to lead on human rights. Both were members of the Socialist Party, which endured more casualties at the hands of Pinochet's security forces than all other parties.⁴⁰ Both suffered personally, as Lagos was forced into exile after the 1973 coup, while Bachelet was imprisoned and tortured.⁴¹

President Kirchner understood the need to quickly pivot the conversation from retribution to reform. Civilian control would not endure if it

³⁸ It was not his party affiliation per se, since the Peronists had always been less ideologically principled and much more clientelistic, flexible, and pragmatic. But Kirchner, who headed up the victorious and decidedly leftist *Frente para la Victoria* (FPV) – an electoral faction within the Peronist Party – made human rights his cause. As Levitsky has stated, the party "may tack to the left or the right depending on the policy preferences of the party leadership . . ." Steven Levitsky and Kenneth N. Roberts (eds.), *The Resurgence of the Latin American Left* (Baltimore: Johns Hopkins University Press, 2011), 14.

³⁹ The Lagos government imposed subtle pressure on the Chilean courts to move against Pinochet. See Pion-Berlin, "The Pinochet Case and Human Rights Progress in Chile," 479–505.

⁴⁰ Bachelet in particular was arrested by Pinochet's DINA agents, detained, and tortured, as were her mother and father (who died from his affliction). Chile, *Report of the Chilean National Commission*, 902.

⁴¹ Lagos later returned to Chile to lead the Democratic Alliance and its campaign to defeat Pinochet's referendum on continued rule.

yielded nothing more than a politically diminished military. It would have to be part of a more comprehensive effort to embed civilian direction within an institutional setting; to make civilian control a component of a revamped defense sector. In 2003, his ministry sponsored roundtable discussions aimed at forging some consensus on what a defense policy of the future might look like and specifically how defense-related institutions might be fortified and civilianized.

Then, with the arrival of Dr. Nilda Garré as Argentine defense minister in December 2005, military subordination would be subsumed within an overall strategic defense plan that in essence governed the military with democratic defense objectives and processes in mind.⁴² That the most intense period of reform took place between 2005 and 2010, during the Kirchner era under the direction of Defense Minister Nilda Garré, is beyond dispute.⁴³ What is of note is that the changes she mandated (elaborated in Chapter 5) served the purpose of fortifying civilian direction and oversight, but in a way that improved overall defense policymaking and deepened military reform. This was no longer simply a matter of ensuring the military would be compliant; this was strengthening the Defense Ministry as the one institution responsible for crafting and overseeing sensible defense plans and making reforms to the military institution that serve the democratic state. This was made possible once important military-related laws that were on the books were finally applied, and new decrees were added which combined provided the new legal framework for institutional strengthening. So even though the original incentive was to punish past military offenders and to then reduce military autonomy, the policy of institutionalized civilian control had the added benefit of rationalizing defense policymaking so that it fulfills government objectives, unifying defense strategy across the services to enhance joint action, and reforming the military so that it is a more democratically compatible institution.

For instance, the civilian-headed Secretariat for Science Technology and Production, lodged within the Defense Ministry, now sets the

⁴² Luciano Anzelini and Iván Poczynok, "El planeamiento estratégico militar en la Argentina (2003–2013): reflexiones en torno al gobierno político de la defensa," *Austral: Revista Brasileira de Estratégia & Relações Internacionais*, 3, 6 (July–December 2014), 143–67.

⁴³ Says Marcelo Sain regarding that time, "Since the establishment of the democracy there has not been a ministerial management as reformist as that headed by the first female defense minister of Argentina." Sain, *Los votos y las botas* (Buenos Aires: Prometeo Libros, 2010), 236.

production priorities, goals, and budgets for the arms industry, in accord with the government's national defense objectives. This reduced the military's autonomy in a sphere it often held a tight grip on. And Argentina called on its ministry's Secretariat for Education to oversee important changes in military pedagogy, ensuring that all the service academies are less insular, that a soldier's academic experience fits with principles shared by the national educational system itself, and that cadets and civilian students now intermingle at the university.

Unlike Argentina, Chile still had to reduce military autonomy further to take on other civilian control initiatives at the time that Ricardo Lagos came to power in 2000. This was achieved with the legal, constitutional reforms of 2005, which essentially eliminated the remaining vestiges of authoritarian power enjoyed by the military and firmed up presidential control over the troops. Institutionalized civilian control could then commence, as the defense ministry came into its own with real advances in defense planning, converting what used to be a process that filtered up from military experts to one that now filtered down from the political authorities and appointees to the military.⁴⁴

Under the guidance of left-of-center administrations, Chile rationalized the defense planning process so that it not only derived from the democratic government's own priorities – not the military's – but it also produced better policies fitted to democratic Chile's strategic and domestic needs. Chile's ministry has been at the center of extensive strategic planning, that includes a process to modernize the armed services by modifying their structures, enhancing their capacities, improving their educational systems, and reformulating their management systems. Though Chile's institutionalized CMR reforms have not been as extensive as Argentina's, they are substantial and have moved well beyond first-generational concerns with reducing military power.

In short, policymaking has improved markedly and sequentially, beginning with reductions in military power, which opened the door for human rights inquests and trials, which led to enhanced, institutionalized civilian control and, ultimately, deeper defense and military reform. Both Argentina and Chile have moved to the second-generational phase of governing the defense sector, and they did so under leftwing governments, precisely because those on the left had greater motivations than those at

⁴⁴ Marcos Robledo, "Más allá de las reformas de la defensa," 176.

the political center or right to curtail military political power in light of their own past experiences.

BRAZIL AND URUGUAY: LOWER ACHIEVERS

The leftwing presidents who came to power in Uruguay and Brazil were also moved by desires to deliver a modicum of justice for victims of past abuses and vested with sufficient moral authority to do so. The *Frente Amplio*'s programmatic platform of December 2003 called for the next government to use all institutional and legal means to advance human rights and rid courts of obstruction. Presidents Tabaré Vázquez and José Mujica took up the call, exhorting the courts to reopen human rights cases against military offenders, which they did, sending a handful of offenders off to prison. Still, the amnesty law remains in force and has been upheld twice now by popular referendums, making more ambitious human rights efforts unlikely. In Brazil, less was done, since there have been no trials or convictions of any offenders. President Lula sought inquiries into past deaths and disappearances but came up short, running into military resistance. Brazilian President Dilma Rousseff succeeded where her predecessor did not, by winning congressional and military support for the creation of that country's first truth commission – a significant achievement. But in Brazil as in Uruguay, an amnesty law stands in the way, as does a military that would rather bury the past than revisit it.

While human rights gains under leftwing rule in Brazil and Uruguay were rather tepid compared to Argentina and Chile, they did mark a break with the past. With rare exceptions, none of the center-right governments that preceded them had shown any inclination to seriously broach the subject, and nothing about the transition itself would have predicted a renewed interest in justice some 20 years down the road. The public was not insisting that cases be revisited, nor were there any electoral payoffs to doing so. Rather, it was the personal convictions of these presidents and some party stalwarts that brought renewed attention to the human rights cause. With the exception of Vázquez, all these leaders had suffered at the hands of security forces during the years of dictatorship, and memories of their ordeals undoubtedly strengthened their determination to make amends for victims of that era.⁴⁵

⁴⁵ President Tabaré Vázquez had not been an especially active party member, nor was he victimized by the dictatorship. But his affiliates within the *Frente Amplio* party were subject to brutal treatment at the hands of the *de facto* regime. With the return of

As argued, leftwing regimes that pursue human rights would have special incentives to advance the cause of civilian control. Leftwing governments in Brazil and Uruguay did take measures to enhance civilian supremacy but, unlike their counterparts in Argentina and Brazil, never institutionalized them. This is not to say there weren't any reforms; there were. As recounted in Chapter 5, governments in both countries strengthened the chain of command and gave their defense ministries the legal authority to oversee a wide range of vital tasks.

But in each case, the most important defense policymaking has been delegated to the ministry's military personnel, while civilians tend to mostly administrative matters.⁴⁶ Entire secretariats and departments were populated by military officers within their respective ministries. Some of the most vital defense work has been allocated to the Joint Military Staff (Brazil) and the Defense General Staff (Uruguay). They are charged with preparing key defense strategies, plans, and doctrines, not to mention overseeing joint military operations. Whether out of deference to military expertise or insecurities about their own competencies, Brazilian and Uruguayan civilians have granted the armed forces a strong dose of policy autonomy. In exchange, the armed forces have accepted civilians overarching political authority. They respect the chain of command and generally do not meddle in political affairs far removed from defense. "To live and let live" seems to be the motto for these two countries, but that comes at the expense of civilians effectively governing the defense sector and rendering deeper reforms to the CMR.

To sum up, some important, late-staged CMR reforms have occurred during the first two decades of the twenty-first century, coinciding with the coming to power of leftwing governments in all four countries. The convergence was not coincidental. The more progressive governments,

democratic rule, Vázquez established some human rights credentials by organizing an effort to overturn the 1986 Amnesty Law. His successor, José Mujica, was a former *Tupamaro* guerilla leader who spent 13 years in captivity under military rule and experienced serious mental health degradation during that time. Brazilian President Lula da Silva had risen through the ranks of the Steelworkers Union to become a pivotal and courageous strike leader in the face of a massive labor crackdown launched by the military regime. And his successor Dilma Rousseff, a former guerrilla fighter, was imprisoned in 1970 by the military government and held for two years while being subjected to electric shocks.

⁴⁶ According to Maria Celina D'Araujo, the 2012 White Book was written by the military with minimal input from academicians, and then presented as a government document. "El caso de Brasil en los desafíos para la definición y ejecución de políticas públicas en defensa y seguridad en América Latina," Presentation at the Latin American Studies Association International Conference, New York, May 2016.

reflecting back on a traumatic past, had greater incentives to pursue change than did more conservative governments, especially when it came to human rights and civilian control. But the similarities between all four left-leaning administrations end there. Argentina and Chile institutionalized civilian authority over the armed forces by strengthening, civilianizing, and bureaucratically reorganizing their ministries in ways that made for better defense and military policymaking. They brought the myriad components of the defense system under one political-strategic umbrella that could more effectively serve the goals of the democratic state. By contrast, Brazil and Uruguay never institutionalized civilian control within their ministries. Instead they adopted the lower-cost strategy of delegating to the armed forces bureaucratic space and policymaking authority. That strategy runs the risk that uniformed personnel could resort too frequently to self-management, devising defense policies that are not optimal from the perspective of democratic governance.

In no case has the entire CMR been transformed. The transformations detailed above in Argentina and Chile occurred mainly within state-centered arenas, affecting relations between the government and the armed forces. Fundamental changes in military-societal relations have lagged behind. In particular, a deeper attitudinal convergence and educational integration along with a more extensive practice of non-discriminatory recruitment and a stronger move toward an occupational, professional ethos are some of the changes that are needed before the CMR can reach a state of full consolidation. But the heretofore described state-level reforms could very well, in theory, be the catalysts for military-societal changes as well. As governments reshape defense policies to serve democratic goals, fitting the armed forces more firmly into that framework, it is conceivable that the military's outlook will shift in time, becoming more compatible with society's. As just one example, state-led changes in the military educational system could foster greater mutual understanding between cadets and their civilian counterparts.

Legislative Opportunities for Late CMR Reforms

As suggested earlier, military and defense reform were not issues that voters in the Southern Cone were paying much attention to, let alone prioritizing. Without voting constituencies pressuring for or against, these policies could neither generate enthusiastic support nor galvanize any opposition. Incumbents were neither going to be rewarded for their accomplishments nor punished for not pursuing them. Moreover, there

were no organized interest groups to rally public opinion in defense of or against these measures.

Plausibly, it would be left to the military alone to weigh in over policies that it felt were going too far. But military contestation had actually decreased substantially from the days of transition. It was rare to find public expressions of military disapproval of government CMR proposals during the twenty-first century. If there was any one country where military objections have been raised periodically and with some impact, it was Brazil. As recalled in Chapter 3, President Lula had to back down on his proposal to create a truth commission when the top military brass complained publicly. Retired officers in Uruguay have on occasion voiced their objections to human rights policies but have done so without much impact.⁴⁷ Generally speaking, though, when CMR reform failed to materialize, it was less the result of military pressure and more a consequence of civilian inertia. Hence, without concerted voter or military opposition to speak of, the CMR policies of this era were very much autonomous choices on the part of the left-of-center governments in power, suggesting this has been an era with wide opportunity structures.

Even if presidents could freely choose, they still had to elicit cooperation from the legislative branch – at least where policies depended on the crafting of congressional laws. How did legislatures impact the crafting of CMR reforms? Were lawmakers in agreement or opposed? Were they sufficiently engaged in defense and military affairs to even care enough about what the executive branch was proposing, or were they relatively disinterested? Here the country conditions vary, but the outcomes are the same: executives got the laws they wanted.

Perhaps the most stunning example of legislative disinterest vis-à-vis the executive branch is in Brazil. At the time that key legislation was proposed in 2010, the Workers' Party had only 16.2 percent of the seats in the Chamber of Deputies and 14.8 percent in the Senate (see Table 9.5), falling considerably short of the 50.1 percent they would need for passage of their defense proposals. With some 18 to 20 parties to contend with and with the Workers' Party commanding a small plurality of the seats, one would think that President Lula would have had his work cut out for him.

⁴⁷ Naturally, there remains the possibility that senior officers have, behind the scenes, lobbied quietly though forcefully for policy changes or have set limits and that the policies that emerge in the light of day are already the product of civilian concessions. For this we have no evidence and can only speculate.

TABLE 9.5 *Left Party Deputies and Senators*

Country	Year	Party	Deputies		Senators	
			(n)	%	(n)	%
Argentina	2003	FpV	129	50.20	38	52.78
	2007	FpV	137	53.31	44	61.12
	2011	FpV	135	52.53	38	52.78
Brazil	2002	PT	91	17.74	13	16.05
	2006	PT	83	16.18	12	14.82
	2010	PT	88	17.16	13	16.05
	2014	PT	69	13.45	13	16.05
Chile	2001	Concertación	62	51.67	20	52.64
	2005	Concertación	65	54.17	20	52.64
	2009	Concertación	57	47.50	20	52.64
	2013	Concertación	67	55.84	21	55.27
Uruguay	2004	FA*	52	52.53	16	53.34
	2009	FA	50	50.51	16	53.34
	2014	FA	50	50.51	15	50.00

* 2004 is presented as Encuentro Progresista/Frente Amplio/Nueva Mayoría.

Source: Authors compiled data from Ministerio del Interior – Presidencia de la República Argentina, Subsecretaría de Asuntos Políticos y Electorales. Tribunal Superior Eleitoral Brasil. Servicio Electoral de Chile. Corte Electoral República Oriental del Uruguay. Banco de Datos Políticos de las Américas, Observatorio de instituciones representativas de América Latina (OIR – Universidad de Salamanca).

But it turns out the defense bills sailed through the Congress with overwhelming support, reaching near unanimity in some cases but almost all with upward of 90 percent majorities.⁴⁸ According to Brazilian scholars, opposition parties felt they had no real stake in these issues and were willing to go along with what the president and his defense minister wanted.⁴⁹ In this instance, disinterest worked to the advantage of incumbents who otherwise would have faced significant challenges in crafting winning coalitions with so many disparate parties.

Argentina's Congress proved to be less relevant on defense topics during the Kirchner era, though that was not the case in the past. Congress had passed landmark legislation under Presidents Alfonsín and

⁴⁸ See Octavio Amorim Neto, "O papel do Congresso nas questões de defesa: entre a abdicação e o comprometimento," in Nelson A. Jobim and Sérgio W. Etchegoyen (eds.), *Segurança internacional: Perspectivas brasileiras* (Rio de Janeiro: FGV Editora, 2010), 435–48.

⁴⁹ Ibid.

then Menem, including the defense and security laws, the law of armed forces restructuring, and one on volunteer military service. Passage was eased thanks to the fact that incumbent parties either enjoyed outright majority in one or both chambers or could negotiate a favorable outcome with the other party. Historically there were only two parties with real clout – the Peronists and the Radicals – thus reducing the need to forge multi-party coalitions or negotiate endlessly with minor parties. For instance, good cooperation between UCR and PJ legislators and their staffers made passage of the defense and security laws possible in 1988 and 1992.

As shown in Table 9.5, the *Frente para la Victoria* Peronist Faction had majority control in both chambers and could have won passage of CMR legislation. But with the earlier laws in place, Presidents Nestor and Cristina Fernández Kirchner had no need to seek further congressional legislation or approval for that matter. They could utilize the legitimate powers of decree to spell out how the defense and security laws would actually be implemented. The Constitution permits the executive to issue decrees, which are “instructions and rules necessary for the enforcement of laws.”⁵⁰ These decrees detailed who would be in charge of what functions so that the laws of defense, security, and restructuring could be fulfilled. Congress was relegated to the sidelines.

Chile’s situation was somewhat different. The ruling *Concertación* is a coalition of four main parties and a few smaller ones. Normally, coalitions prove more unwieldy than parties, complicating efforts to achieve internal consensus. But in Chile, there was generally close coordination and agreement between *Concertación* members, allowing them to vote as a bloc. Though the coalition managed to achieve majorities in both congressional chambers throughout most sessions between 2001 and 2009 (Table 9.5), the added challenge in 2005 was to overcome the 67 percent threshold needed to reform military attributes within the Constitution. The *Concertación*’s majority fell short of this mark by 15 seats in the Chamber of Deputies and five seats in the Senate. It could only get above that threshold by securing the support of rightwing parties, and this it did for reasons spelled out in Chapter 2. The rightwing party coalition, *Alianza*, composed of two major parties, also held together

⁵⁰ Constitution of the Argentine Nation, art. 99.2. www.parliament.am/library/sahmana-drutyunner/argentina.pdf.

and voted as a bloc, reaching agreement with the *Concertación* in August 2005 after five years of vigorous debate.⁵¹

The fact that these coalitions voted as blocs and the fact that there were only two coalitions to contend with made legislative victories easier than would have otherwise been the case in a system with so many individual political parties. Five years later, the Bachelet government could more easily secure approval of the new Organic Law of the Defense Ministry, which required a simple majority. But passage was not preordained, since unlike their Brazilian colleagues, Chile's congressmen took a real interest in this vital piece of defense legislation, and their defense commissions debated the bill dozens of times over several years.

Finally, in Uruguay, the legislative landscape changed with the assumption to power of the *Frente Amplio* governments. Before that time, neither the *Colorado* nor the *Blanco* Party had secured outright majorities on its own. But as shown in Table 9.5, the FA commanded majorities in both chambers, from 2005 to 2015. That meant easier passage of defense-related legislation, though not without deliberation. As in Chile, Uruguayan legislators demonstrated real interest in the proposed Defense Law (see Chapter 5), with defense commissions devoting some 26 sessions to the Framework National Defense Bill alone between 2008 when it was introduced till 2010 when it won final passage.

In sum, the legislative branch in these four countries never posed obstacles for defense and military reform. Either by virtue of congressional disinterest, incumbent party majorities, or executive decree authority, leftwing party incumbents earned approval for the laws they desired. Each administration successfully exploited the wide opportunity structures that existed at the time.

LESSONS LEARNED

What can be taken away from this study? Are there lessons for scholars that they can apply to the study of other countries and regions? Our approach offers no specific template for others to follow, nor does it yield a general theory of civil-military relations. However, the framework has been devised with the conviction that insights gleaned from its application to the four Latin American nations may be transportable elsewhere.

⁵¹ A debate considered by one expert to have been the most important since return of democracy. See Fuentes, "After Pinochet," 111.

The first and most important takeaway is that as important as the linear relation between government officials and military officers is, studying that alone will leave scholars without a comprehensive enough portrait of the CMR. All three points of the triad – soldiers, politicians, and civilians – and relations between them merit investigation. Connections between civilians within society and the military in particular often get short shrift within the literature, especially among political scientists. We have begun to address those shortcomings, but it is only a start, and clearly much more needs to be done.

In Chapter 1, we argued that soldiers, politicians, and civilians cannot be let off the hook; either they are all part of the problem, or they are part of the solution. If we are correct in our appraisal that getting CMR reform is the key to getting military reform, then it will take the efforts of numerous players from state and society to fix what is wrong with this system. Leadership does begin at the top, but presidents will not be able to single-handedly do the job, however committed they may be. It will take commitments from ministers and their staffs, legislators, educators, and experts to make a difference. And it will take an attentive public and a willing military to facilitate change.

For example, consider the views of the voting public matter when it comes to governments reforming the military. It was discovered in Chapter 7 that there are significant pluralities in Brazil that believe military regimes could solve problems more effectively than democratic ones. Where the view persists that officers in charge could be politically competent, it makes it more difficult for politicians to argue in favor of reducing military prerogatives, let alone pursuing more profound military reform. As that chapter indicated, public views must shift from a negative to a positive convergence with the military, centered on values and practices that align with democratic norms, if CMR is to advance further.

Also, there is an irony in the growing Southern Cone public view that the military question is no longer a pressing one for democratic endurance and that society has many more important problems to contend with. While this is good news in one sense, in another it is not because it has also induced a public insouciance about military and defense affairs. Citizen detachment helps perpetuate attention deficits among politicians, bringing with them all of the detrimental consequences alluded to earlier. This is but one reason to subject civilian views on the military and defense to closer scrutiny.

It is a short step from indifference to ignorance. Civilians who don't care about the armed forces also have less understanding of them.

The same result is true for the military and its indifference toward the public. One means of enhancing mutual awareness, as argued in Chapter 6, is to provoke greater interaction between civilian students and cadets. College-age youth are at an impressionable stage in their lives, more open to new points of view. Breaking down academic barriers could have positive spillover effects. Civilians could rid themselves of outmoded stereotypes about armies, while soldiers could be socialized into visualizing themselves as citizens first, not as segregated members of a privileged caste.

As Chapter 7 points out, if the military is to be really sensitized to the society that surrounds it in order to better fit within the democratic framework, it needs to adopt to societal trends, values, and aspirations. If knowledge deficits on both sides of the civil-military ledger were somehow overcome, this could, in theory, contribute to greater convergence. Closer ties with society could generate greater interest in occupational incentive models and could also help sensitize the armed forces to the need to end discriminatory practices against women and gays. That, in turn, could help to make the military a more democratically compatible institution. It all begins with better relations between civilians and soldiers – relations worth studying in much greater detail.

Compatibility redounds in favor of civilian control, as a less isolated, more integrated officer class and rank and file can better appreciate why in a democracy they should faithfully serve the defense and foreign policy goals as set by elected, civilian leaders – not those they set for themselves. And they can perhaps more humbly admit that they are but one component of a broader defense and foreign policymaking system, which also includes political appointees and staffers as well as civilian experts inside and outside of government, all of whom have important roles to play.

This Latin American Southern Cone subregion has provided, in a sense, a difficult test for CMR reforms because of the very low-threat security environment. There are no reasonable war scenarios on the horizon, not even geopolitical rivalries that could conceivably spill over into armed conflict. Thus politicians and citizens alike could afford to ignore defense and military problems altogether without assuming great risk, as some have. The implication is clear: any CMR improvements made there can certainly be made elsewhere where there are stronger incentives to do so and where attention to military and defense-related themes is greater. The contextual challenges of the Southern Cone subregion give us greater confidence in the possibilities for similar, in fact deeper, CMR reform in other geographical areas.

At the same time, a democracy situated perhaps in a more precarious security environment may be tempted to focus exclusively on the goal of enhancing the military's war-fighting capabilities to the exclusion of adjustments in military attitudes that would help democratize the armed forces. This study suggests that there is risk for *all* emerging democracies in only embarking on the narrower, war-fighting path. Without attending to the CMR as a whole, without promoting changes that will facilitate new military thinking and better, more productive, and more compliant relations with state policymakers while forging closer ties with society, countries are just assuming that their more professionally capable warriors will dutifully fall in line. That is a risky assumption, since history teaches us it is often the overly confident, modernized militaries that push the envelope, looking for ways to convert their institutional strengths into political power. That is true even where external threats are prevalent.⁵² The more holistic path to reform is a hedge against a resuscitated military praetorianism; it is a means of crafting reforms along multiple dimensions to ensure that the military is respectful of the political authorities, of democracy, and of society, even as it improves its defensive capabilities.

But those changes are easier spoken about than accomplished. To the extent that this Southern Cone subregion constitutes a challenging environment in which to promote CMR reform, it also throws the spotlight on the considerable hurdles that must be cleared, some of which may have relevance to other subregions.

The first is to consider carefully the sequencing of reforms. Some problems are more pressing than others and demand attention right after the regime transition period; others can wait until the system has consolidated itself. The test for policymakers in the early phase is to assert themselves to set the wheels in motion but without unduly provoking; to calibrate their moves in accord with the opportunity structures that avail themselves at the time. Governments that move too brazenly too soon against a still formidable military may trigger a backlash that can set back future initiatives. Equally problematic, though, is the strategy to needlessly hold off on reforms despite the real chances to act. Too long a postponement can mean an irretrievable loss of momentum, motivation, and support.

⁵² That is certainly the case in Israel and Pakistan, to name two countries in high-threat environments.

Some kinds of reforms really are more difficult than others and will have to be deferred. For example, deeply rooted mentalities, beliefs, and values are harder to alter, which is why achieving a convergence between the military and society is difficult. Trade-offs have to be made in alignment with where a reform proposal lies along the professional-political continuum. As noted in Chapter 1, the further removed a military problem is from what are core political spheres of influence, the less threatening it is to the democracy. Putting off (not indefinitely) changes in military pedagogy or recruitment practices is not desirable, but at least doing so does not *directly* impede the ability of elected leaders to govern, since education and recruitment lie more squarely within the armed forces' professional (organizational) orbit of influence.

What is critical to democratic governance is the need to reduce the military's political clout. Findings here confirm what Samuel Huntington, Alfred Stepan, and other scholars have asserted and practitioners have discovered: namely that tilting the balance of power decisively in favor of civilians is a prerequisite to other advances. It allows for democratic leaders to govern as sovereigns, free from military threats or vetoes; to enforce a proper chain of command; to strengthen ministries and other defense-related institutions; and to empower civilians to take on defense-related tasks. Argentina and Chile give strong sustenance to the view that once military autonomy is reduced, particularly in the sphere of human rights, then avenues of opportunity open up for civilian leaders to choose more robust methods of civilian control, followed by genuine defense and military reform. In short, sequencing matters.

The second lesson, which follows from the first, is for civilians to fill the void from a retreating military. When a military in declining power no longer dominates defense and military policymaking, it is left to civilians take the lead. That does not happen automatically. We have found that even when officers step back, civilians don't always step in. They don't seize the vacated policy space to take charge and instead leave a vacuum that eventually can be reoccupied by uniformed personnel. Civilians want the formal authority that comes with holding down presidential, ministerial, and secretarial positions within the state but often shy away from the obligation to actually govern the military and the defense sector. That is an aversion all democratic governments should overcome. As our study has shown, surmounting the hesitancy to fill the policy void takes not only the motivation to do so but a sufficient level of competency, which brings us to the third point.

Generating sufficient interest among civilians in military and defense themes, so that they may accrue knowledge on those topics, is especially difficult in a low-threat environment, but it is not impossible. As Brazil has shown, supply can create its own demand, when those in academia, the military, and government cooperate to design new programs of study in defense within universities and research institutes. Those programs can attract a cadre of civilians who aspire to serve in government upon graduation. But their willingness to serve must be matched by government's desire to recruit them. This is where the link often breaks down. Building career tracks – ones that connect knowledge-building academic programs with defense ministries and congressional defense commissions – should be a priority for all new democracies that want to ensure there is a strong civilian presence within defense policymaking circles.

The fourth point is that the difficulties mentioned above help shed light on important differences in the pace by which civil-military relations and democracies develop. CMR, as a partial regime, has an iterative relation with the larger democratic system. As Figure 1.3 illustrates, democratic achievements can motivate CMR achievements, which in turn propel further democratic gains. The process is sequential, *not* synchronous; system and subsystem do not move in tandem. Hence, it was discovered that in otherwise consolidated democracies like Brazil and Uruguay, certain components of the CMR are lagging seriously behind, still in states of transition. A military (Brazil) that exploits its constitutional right to enforce internal law and order and can, under certain conditions, exert command authority over the police is not one consistent with a mature polyarchy. Likewise, a ministry (Uruguay) that repeatedly delegates the most vital defense-related tasks to its military general staff while relegating civilians to administrative duties is one that is not progressing in a democratically compatible manner. Scholars have for too long presumed that if the democracy writ large appears to be on solid footing, so too must its civil-military component. That is not necessarily so. It behooves scholars of other countries and regions to take a hard look at the CMR to diagnose in what ways its development may be lagging behind the democracy itself.

Finally, if this study has contributed significantly to the literature, it has done so primarily by demonstrating how the civil-military relation can be usefully divulged and measured in all its complexity. By unpacking the CMR into its various dimensions, ones that traverse state-society boundaries, the book has hopefully provided a much-needed, multi-angled view of the relationship between soldiers, politicians, and

civilians. And by devising metrics to assess progress along those dimensions, its purpose has been to allow us to know if changes have actually occurred and by how much. With that is our further hope that the research has shed more light on what it takes to transform what was once a politically minded military into an organization at the loyal service of a democratic state and society.